Kade Spaulding

This is a synthesis of three analytical papers written for an upper division course in international relations (PS 432 – Global Conflicts) that examines one war theoretically and quantitatively. It discusses history, power theories of war, and leader explanations of conflict in the context of the Arab-Israeli War of 1948.

The Arab-Israeli War of 1948-1949 was fought between the newly established Jewish state of Israel and five Arab states: Jordan, Iraq, Egypt, Lebanon, and Syria. In order to understand the causes as well as the impacts of the war, we can examine the historical background, as well as theoretical explanations of war, and see how they apply to this case. First, we can examine the lead up to the conflict and the events that took place during the war. We will then look at theoretical explanations of conflict using states' material power and apply one to this case. Finally, we will examine explanations of conflict at the leader level using said leader's background and attributes and see if theoretical explanations and empirics effectively explain what happened.

We must first briefly look at a time much earlier in the century than when this war took place to examine the Sykes-Picot Agreement of 1916, as this agreement had major ramifications that led to the start of the war in 1948. Great Britain entered into an agreement where they would support Arab movements for independence in the region surrounding the area that would become Israel (Sarkees and Wayman 2010, 146). This included the British Mandate of Palestine, which Britain said was committed to also establishing a home for the Jewish people in, along with Arabs (Sarkees and Wayman 2010, 146). The Sykes-Picot agreement was entered into in order to divide the territories of the recently dissolved Ottoman Empire into British and French territory, with little regard for the actual geopolitical configurations of the region, so the borders drawn up were arbitrary (Bali 2017, 1). This British and French control of the region lasted until the end of the Second World War, when Britain attempted to create an agreement in which the two sides could agree on the future of Palestine, but both sides refused any agreement (Sarkees and Wayman 2010, 146). Arabs opposed any plan with the establishment of a Jewish state in what they considered Arab territory (Sarkees and Wayman 2010, 146).

Immediately preceding the interstate war that Sarkees and Wayman (2010) code as starting on May 15th of 1948, was the intercommunal war between the Arabs and Jews for the control over the land after Britain had left the land of Palestine in 1947 and handed control of the region over to the United Nations (Bregman 2016, 10). The Arabs argued to the UN council, which arrived in Palestine, that the only thing that could happen after the departure of the British, was the establishment of an Arab state. The Jews argued for partitioning the land between the two ethnic groups (Bregman 2016, 10-11). On November 27th, 1947, the UN General Assembly voted in favor of the partition plan, stating, "*Recommends* to the United Kingdom, as the mandatory Power for Palestine, and to all other Members of the United Nations the adoption and implementation, with regard to the future government of Palestine, of the Plan of Partition with Economic Union set out below", ending the British Mandate of Palestine and partitioning the land between the Jews and Arabs (United Nations General Assembly 1947). This was a political victory for the Jews who wanted the partitioning, and it showed that the Arab's decision to protest the UN vote was a poor decision as they could not make their case due to their intransigent view on the creation of an Arab only state (Bregman 2016, 12). The months following the UN resolution and leading up to the interstate war were characterized by Arab violence on Jewish settlements in the region of Palestine before the civil war between Arabs and Jews was to commence (Bregman 2016, 12).

The civil war over the region of Palestine between the Jews and Arabs ended on May 14th, 1948, when the British ended their mandate of Palestine, and the state of Israel was established (Naor 2008, 241). The interstate war began the day after, on May 15th, 1948, where the state of Israel now had a compulsory army and no longer relied on volunteers to partake in fighting, and the IDF (Israeli Defense Forces) was formed the same month (Naor 2008, 243-

245). Armies from the states of Egypt, Syria, Iraq, Lebanon, and Jordan entered Palestine on the same day the interstate war started (Sarkees and Wayman 2010, 146). Israeli mobilization was quite high once the war had started, with the IDF stating it had a manpower of around 94,000 soldiers with a population of around 792,000; The Arab armies had a manpower of around 68,000, both numbers collected in November of 1948 (Naor 2008, 245). Many Israelis were exempted from service for economic reasons, thus keeping the state of Israel's economy stable during and after the war (Naor 2008, 245). In May of 1948, some major events included Iraqi attacks on Gesher, Egyptian forces entering Palestine and moving towards Jerusalem, Israeli raids on Syria and Lebanon, Egyptian attacks on Israeli forces (many of which failed), and the fall of the Jewish quarter in Jerusalem to Arab forces (Karsh 2014, 18). In June, Egyptian forces captured a city around 30 kilometers south of Tel Aviv (capital of Israel), and Israel captured cities in the southern sector of the Arab region (Karsh 2014, 18). On June 11th, 1948, a four-week truce was introduced, with Egyptian forces resuming the fighting on July 8th, 1948, showing that fighting was not due to stop soon (Karsh 2014, 18).

Throughout July, Egypt and Syria continued to leverage strikes on Israel, as well as the IDF captured numerous Arab cities on the southern front (Karsh 2014, 18). A second truce was introduced on July 18th, with intermittent fighting happening in Jerusalem until November of 1948 (Karsh 2014, 18). Many Arabs were expelled from their homes during fighting to make room for Jewish settlements (Bregman 2016, 25). In September of 1948, the UN published the "Bernadotte Plan" for peace in the region, named after the UN Mediator, Folke Bernadotte, who was assassinated on September 17th, 1948, by Israeli paramilitary group Lehi (Karsh 2014, 18). This paramilitary extremist group saw the mediator as a threat to the creation of Israel, as Bernadotte pushed for a Palestinian peace plan between both ethnic groups (Stanger 1989, 265).

Lehi explicitly stated, “There will be no foreign rule in the Homeland. There shall no longer be foreign Commissioners in Jerusalem” and has publicly claimed to be the reason for Bernadotte’s death. (Stanger 1989, 264-267). Throughout October, Israel was gaining a clear upper hand, pushing out Lebanese, Syrian, and Egyptian forces from territories they had captured, likely due to the previously mentioned high mobilization and low coordination between the Arab nations (Karsh 2014, 18). On October 31st, 1948, Iraq, Jordan, Lebanon, and Syria withdrew from the war, leaving the only states participating Egypt and Israel (Sarkees and Wayman 2010, 146). From December 1948 to January 1949 the IDF expelled Egyptian forces from Israeli territory, with Egypt officially ending their fighting on January 7th, 1949 (Sarkees and Wayman 2010, 146; Karsh 2014, 19).

The Arab Israeli conflict, both the events preceding and during, had lasting effects on the geopolitical complexities of the region. It ended in a relatively clear victory for the Israelis, starting with the political victory that was the partition plan. Throughout the war Israel built a massive defense force, ending with a military of around 100,000 soldiers (Naor 2008, 245). The war was quite devastating for region, Israel lost around 1 percent of their Jewish population with 1162 of those fatalities being civilians, and around 50,000 Arabs were forcibly removed from their homes (Naor 2008, 245-254; Bregman 2016, 25). The war also created around 72,000 Jewish refugees as they were evacuated throughout the course of the war (most of the war took place in Israeli territory until the end of 1948, when they pushed into foreign territory) (Naor 2008, 245; Karsh 2014, 19). Since Tel Aviv was so heavily targeted from the air during the war and many jobs were there, it became the “heart” of Israel and the economic and political center (Naor 2008, 255). Israel has since been engaged in numerous wars since the end of the Arab-Israeli War of 1948-1949, and the public conscience that was shaped by this war has helped

judge the righteousness of subsequent wars (Bregman 2016, 10; Naor 2008, 256). This war and the following wars have continued to destabilize the Middle East and further soured Jewish and Arab communities in this region, with no real end to conflict in sight (Naor 2008, 256).

The Arab-Israeli War of 1948 was the consequence of geopolitical meddling from European powers in the early 1900s as well as conflict over the control of the region of Palestine between Arab and Jewish populations. International fighting went from May 1948 to January 1949 and ended with an Israeli victory and staying power in the Middle Eastern region due to its high mobilization and wartime economy. It was not only a military victory for Israel but a geopolitical turning point in the majority Arab region. The conflict had lasting effects in the region, while fighting continues today.

Now that we have discussed the historical context surrounding the Arab-Israeli War of 1948, we can discuss and test a theory of power of interstate war that applies to this specific case. There are multiple theories in conflict study that attempt to explain how power can lead to war, including Balance of Power Theory and Power Transition Theory as basic examples. This paper hypothesizes that the Balance of Power Theory is the most applicable to the Arab-Israeli War of 1948 and will test that hypothesis empirically using the Military Material Power that evaluates states military capabilities (Souva 2022). We will first discuss the general theory and implications of Balance of Power Theory, then how it relates to the Arab-Israeli War, and finally use empirical testing to see if the hypothesis has evidence to support it.

The Balance of Power Theory posits that we expect war to occur when there is an imbalance of Power in the international system, and we expect peace when there is a clear dominant power. This theory has deep roots in international relations, dating back to even ancient Greece where scholars found Balance of Power Theory relevant to the wars of Sparta and

Athens (Gilpin 1988, 604- 605). Morgenthau (1948) likens the balance of an international system to equilibriums in other sciences. When that equilibrium is upset, the system is also upset, and we expect instability (and in our case, war). States seek to keep the equilibrium of the system by not allowing a member of the system from gaining too much power over the other states (Morgenthau 1948, 126-127). What this means essentially is when a state gains power in the international system; other states will seek to "balance" against the rising state through alliances so that they can successfully defend their territories.

Another dimension of the Balance of Power Theory is the idea that states balance against threats rather than just raw power (Walt 1987, 17). That is, even if the power imbalance is not clear or immediate, if states feel that a rising challenger has the potential to upset the equilibrium of the system, they will balance against the threatening state. The key assumptions to the Balance of Power Theory are that the international system is anarchical, and states are territorial, want to maximize security, and act rationally to achieve these goals (Levy 2004, 31).

Since states want to maximize security, or in other words want to guarantee their survival, if they feel that this survival is threatened, conflict will occur to prevent this from happening. We also need to make note of the idea of "preventive war". Preventive war is the idea that if there is an expectation of a future imbalance of power, states will go to war to prevent being overtaken (Bell and Johnson 2015, 124). Levy (1987) quotes Thucydides' account of the Peloponnesian war to illustrate this concept, stating, "It was the rise of Athens and the fear that it inspired in Sparta that made war inevitable." Sparta was looking at the increase in power, and subsequently their relative decrease in power, and to stop this chasm from widening, conflict began.

The Arab-Israeli War is a bit of a unique case in interstate conflict, as the war became an interstate conflict at the same time Israel entered the international system as a state (Sarkees and Wayman 2010, 146). However, many future Israeli citizens were living in the region of Palestine, and the Jews and Arabs were involved an intercommunal war beforehand during British occupation of Palestine after the fall of the Ottoman Empire (Sarkees and Wayman 2010, 146). Thus, we can assume that Israel was essentially a quasi-state with measurable power before the war, we just do not have said measures. Like Walt (1987) claims, states balance against threats and not just raw power, and we can look at the Arab states as a key example of this balance of the perceived threat of Israel's entrance into the system in the middle eastern region. After World War Two, Britain was committed to making a home for the Jewish people in Palestine, but there were large Muslim populations already living in the region as well as surrounding countries as former Ottoman territory (Bali 2017, 1). It is reasonable that the Arab populations there must have felt threatened that a major power such as Britain was prepared to prop up a new home for Jewish refugees even after the British agreed to support the Arab independent movements, and we will examine some historical evidence to determine if this assumption holds (Sarkees and Wayman 2010, 146).

We also need to look at measurable power, as that is the core of this theory of conflict. In order for the Balance of Power Theory to apply to this war properly, there must be a disparity in power between the nations in conflict. As mentioned, Israel does not have a measure of power before 1948, but Jewish settlers were living in Palestine and fighting against Arabs there before the war started, so it is reasonable to assume there was at least a basis of power for what would become Israel. Jewish settlers in Palestine and Arabs in Palestine were engaged in violent conduct before the interstate war, with both sides even killing British soldiers, and a large

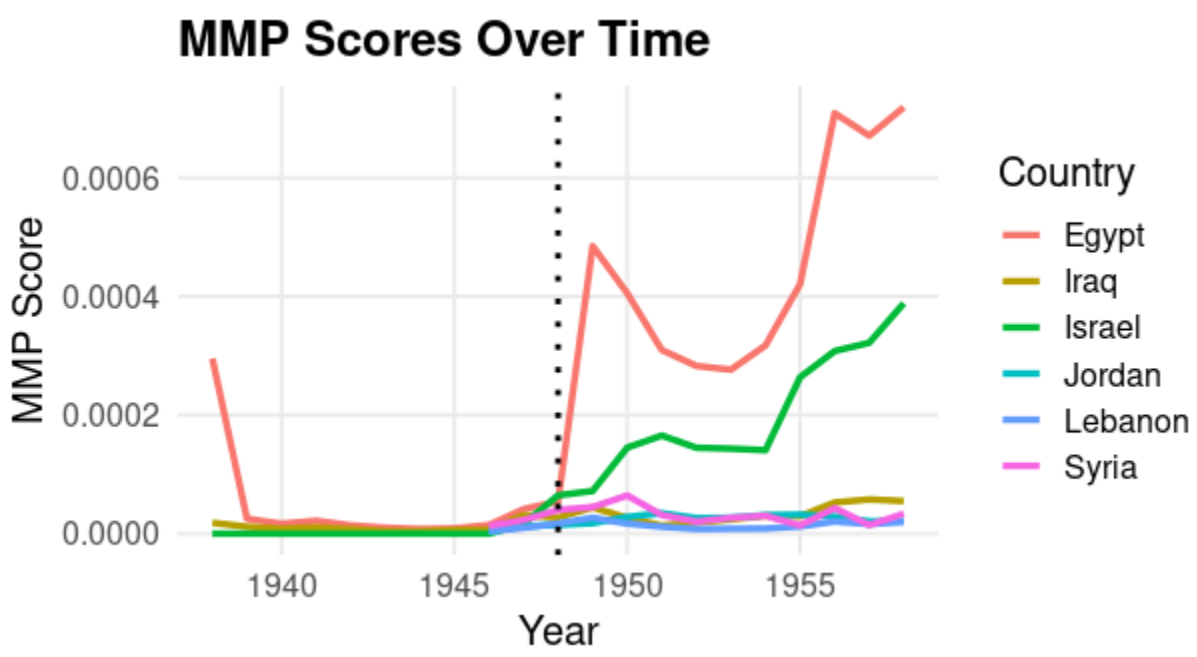
proportion of these Jewish settlers would be involved with the IDF in the coming interstate war (Sarkees and Wayman 2010, 146). There are six states involved in this war, with Israel being the sole belligerent against five Arab nations, so if the Balance of Power Theory was to hold, we would expect some disparity in power between Israel and one or more of the Arab states. Like the quote from Levy (1987), we can theorize that the Arabs in the region were afraid of Israel's increasing power and wanted to intervene before the gap became too great.

We can now look at historical evidence and empirical measures of power to determine if our theories hold. The key questions are: was there a clear gap in power between the Arab states and Israel, did the Arab states "balance" to ensure security, and was there a clear threat that needed to be balanced against? First, we will look at a comparison of the states using Souva's (2022) Material Military Power measure of power (a nation's land power, naval power, air power, and ballistic missile/nuclear missile capabilities). We will be using this rather than the more widely used CINC data, as CINC weighs many aspects of statehood that Israel is not old enough to have properly established (population, urban population, energy consumption, and iron and steel production to be specific), and this would not accurately display Israel's development in military power that led to their eventual victory (Sarkees and Wayman 2010, 146; Greig and Enterline 2021). Since Israel is not coded as a state until the start of the war, we can use a linear regression on MMP with year as the independent variable and then predict what Israel's power would have looked like, assuming that their prewar trend is the same as during and after the war. This of course assumes that Israel's increase in power is linear, so we must make sure that this is a reasonable thing to assume. Below is the regression table of Israel's power from 1948 to 1958.

Linear Model: MMP ~ Year (Israel)

	Military Material Power (MMP)		
Predictor	*Estimate*	*std. Error*	*p*
(Intercept)	-0.058406	0.007757	**<0.001**
year	0.000030	0.000004	**<0.001**
Observations	11		
R^2 / R^2 adjusted	0.864 / 0.849		

We have a significant regressor of year, and our R^2 is quite high, so our assumption that the power growth is linear with years is reasonable. We can now look at the comparisons of the MMP of the states involved in the war. The black line represents when the war starts, and if the regression predicts a negative power measure, it is set to 0, as negative power is not possible. Lebanon, Syria, and Jordan share a similar issue of power not starting where our data starts (1938), but their power growth stays roughly constant and at least starts before the war, so we will not worry about building any predictive models for these states.



The graph shows that Israel does indeed begin to grow in power relative to the Arab states (assuming this relationship holds) and continues to do so after the war ended in 1948. Egypt has a significant rise in power once the war starts, and the other states stay at their relative power levels. The weaker states allied against Israel to try and curb the threat of a non-Arab nation in the middle east. The graph supports the idea of preventive war, as Israel grows rapidly in power relative to most of the Arab states before the war, and continues to do so. The Arab states most likely saw this rise and the potential for an even bigger increase and allied together to try and stop Israel's growth.

While Egypt is technically the most powerful state involved in the conflict, the power stems from its long-established statehood and the increased desire to mobilize due to the conflict at hand. Israel's growth in military power for such a young state is quite impressive, and such a quick power disparity between most of the states in the region would be worrying for them. We can also look at historical data to show that the Arab states did in fact feel threatened with a Jewish state entering the region. Before the war had started, there were already attacks on Jewish settlements by Arabs in the region, clearly showing that the Jewish people were not welcome, and Arabs would indeed go to war if the Jewish state was established (Sarkees and Wayman 2010, 146). The Arabs were quite committed to Palestine being an Arab only state, even forgoing the UN meeting on the future of the region to showcase their distaste for any Jewish state in the region and stated to the council that the only thing they viewed possible was the creation of an Arab only state (Bregman 2016, 10-12). We can reasonably infer that the Arab populations did not want Israel to exist, and would go to great lengths to stop it, clearly feeling threatened in their respective states.

We do find support for the Balance of Power Theory applying to the Arab-Israeli War. Balance of Power theorizes that war will occur when the international system is not at equilibrium in power, and states will balance against perceived threats. We find evidence for the power argument, as Israel grows in power upsetting balance in the middle east, causing states to both balance against it (Lebanon, Syria, Iraq, Jordan) and build their own military to deal with it (Egypt). We also find clear evidence that Arab states in the region did feel threatened with the inclusion of Israel into the international system, and war was extremely likely due to this perceived threat.

Power explanations of war, like the ones we have just discussed, view international conflict through the lens of states as the primary agents, and power being the variable that causes war, even if the theories disagree on how power causes it. This does not take into account the fact that states have leaders making decisions, rather than states acting in vacuums. There are many variables researchers have considered when determining how a leader's life will affect their military strategy. These variables include age, military careers, combat experience, rebel experience, etc. We will look at general theoretical explanations of war initiation based on leaders' experiences, how these theoretical explanations relate to the leaders in the Arab-Israeli War, and finally use empirical data to see what one may have expected before the war was initiated and if it matches reality.

Much of the past research on war revolves around systemic explanations for the onset of war. Both the Balance of Power Theory of war and the Power Transition Theory of war are widely cited as leading explanations for the cause of war. Both explanations treat states as agents in war but largely ignore the actions of leaders as agents in international conflict. Chiozza and Goemanns (2004) state that much of international relations scholarship relies on states as the

theoretical actor, while using statements and memoirs of leaders as the empirical measures. There is also the widely known puzzle that war is costly, yet we still see war to this day. Fearon (1995) gives a few different explanations for why this might be, the most related one being that leaders may enjoy certain benefits of war while not suffering the costs imposed on the population. Chiozza and Goemanns (2004) go further into this alternative explanation for the onset of war noting that wartime may offer benefits to leaders not available during peacetime, such as postponing elections and sending political opponents to the front lines.

Another theoretical explanation for the onset of war is looking at the military backgrounds of different leaders, and how those could influence decision making. Horowitz and Stam (2014) note that much of the literature on leaders in international relations focuses more on leader types rather than leaders as independent actors and formative experiences that shape their decision making. They argue that life experiences shape leaders' beliefs which then influence foreign policy outcomes. Military experience is important when discussing war likelihood as it shapes behavior in someone's formative years (young adulthood) and it gives a frame of reference for initiating conflict if a soldier or rebel goes on to be the leader of a state (Horowitz and Stam 2014, 531-532). There is also a distinction between military experiences in combat and not in combat. Horowitz and Stam (2014) theorize that leaders that have military experience but did not participate in combat have familiarity with military services and are more likely to employ them, but those with military and combat experience have more knowledge of the risks and consequences that come from conflict. They also theorize that rebel experience will make leaders more likely to initiate conflict due to the inherently risk acceptant personality that rebels have.

The Arab-Israeli War involves five different states so it must of course involve five different leaders, and we will be focusing on the prior military experience theories rather than tenure or benefit arguments for onset. Since Israel became a state as soon as the war started, tenure is not a reasonable theory to look at, and from the history of the war we know most of the reason for the conflict in general is religious and external and not related to domestic politics directly. We will look at the characteristics of the leaders in the conflict based on the LEAD (Leader Experience, Attribute, and Decision) dataset formulated by Michael Horowitz and Allan Stam, as well as the logistic regression they performed to see if it fits what happened in this war. The last names of leaders in this war are Ben Gurion (Israel), Abdul-Ilah (Iraq), Farouk (Egypt), Kuwatli (Syria), EL Khoury (Lebanon), and Abdullah Al-Hussein (Jordan). The only one with military experience is Ben Gurion, who also had experience in combat and as a rebel (Horowitz and Stam 2014). Using the same war initiation dataset and logistic regression (initiation is 1 and non-initiation is 0) as Horowitz and Stam, we arrive at the following predicted probabilities of war initiation for each leader in the conflict. Predicted probabilities were obtained in R using the predict() function using the previously mentioned regression.

Predicted Probabilities for Israeli/Arab Leaders in 1948

Leader Name	predicted_probabilities
Abdullah Al-Hussein	0.016
Ben Gurion	0.008
Kuwatli	0.007
Farouk	0.007
Abdul-Ilah	0.007
EL Khoury	0.006

With the same model, the average leader (55 years old, no military or combat experience, no rebel experience, no war win or loss, non-autocratic leader, and a CINC score of 0.0053934) has a probability of war initiation of 0.006. This predicted probability came from STATA's Clarify package and simulating quantities of interest, with discrete and continuous variables set to the means, and binary variables are set at the modes (0 = no, 1 = yes). Some CINC scores had missing values, so any -9s were changed to zero for a more accurate average. All our leaders have the same probability or higher than the typical leader. In the Lead Dataset, all four of the Arab leaders are coded as initiating the war, but in the Correlates of War (COW) dataset, the comprehensive war dataset, Jordan is coded as the initiator. Abdullah Al-Hussein is the Jordanian leader, so if COW's declaration is accurate our prediction makes sense, as he of course has much higher probability to initiate war than the rest of the leaders. As for the rest of the leaders, they are also higher than the average leader, which makes sense since all of them (except Ben Gurion) are coded as the initiators in LEAD.

It does seem that the hypothesis and data support what happened in this specific case, as the initiation leaders have high relative probabilities of initiation. Even though Ben Gurion has the second highest probability of war initiation but is not coded as an initiator in LEAD, it is arguable who was the actual initiator of the conflict. The war technically did start with Arab militaries entering Palestine once Israel gained statehood, but the conflict had started as an intercommunal conflict much before this (Sarkees and Wayman 2010, 146-147), so it is not unthinkable that Ben Gurion has such a high likelihood for war initiation. The role of religion and geography also undoubtedly is crucial to understanding this war, and historical data of conflict could be used to evaluate these explanations of war onset, for this conflict specifically.

In conclusion, we have discussed the historical background of the Arab-Israeli War, a crucial conflict that has left the Middle East destabilized to this day and was a major consequence of the fall of the Ottoman Empire and World War Two. We then looked at power explanations of war, specifically the Balance of Power Theory, and tested it with empirically measures of power to evaluate if this theory could be applied to the Arab Israeli War. Balance of Power was chosen due to its theoretical matching to the case, as Power Transition Theory is seemingly not applicable due to Israel's unestablished statehood until the war had already started. Finally, we looked at leader level analysis and replicated Horowitz and Stam's predictive model to apply it to this case specifically. Overall, this case analysis shows how we can look at key theories of conflict and test them empirically to attempt to explain war onset.

References

Bâli, A. (2016). Sykes-Picot and "artificial" states. *AJIL Unbound, 110*, 115–119. https://doi.org/10.1017/s2398772300002919

Bell, S. R., & Johnson, J. C. (2014). Shifting power, commitment problems, and preventive war. *International Studies Quarterly, 59*(1), 124–132. https://doi.org/10.1111/isqu.12165

Bregman, A. (2016). *Israel's wars: A history since 1947*. Routledge.

Cary David Stanger. (1988). A haunting legacy: The assassination of Count Bernadotte. *Middle East Journal, 42*(2), 260–272. http://www.jstor.org/stable/4327737

Chiozza, G., & Goemans, H. E. (2004). International conflict and the tenure of leaders: Is war still ex post inefficient? *American Journal of Political Science, 48*(3), 604–619. https://doi.org/10.1111/j.0092-5853.2004.00090.x

Ellis, C. M., Horowitz, M. C., & Stam, A. C. (2015). Introducing the LEAD data set. *International Interactions, 41*(4), 718–741. https://doi.org/10.1080/03050629.2015.1016157

Fearon, J. D. (1995). Rationalist explanations for war. *International Organization, 49*(3), 379–414. https://www.jstor.org/stable/2706903

Gilpin, R. (1988). The theory of hegemonic war. *Journal of Interdisciplinary History, 18*(4), 591–613. https://doi.org/10.2307/204816bjbbjfdfdsfdffdsffvfvbfvfvfvbfbvgfbvgf

Greig, J. M., & Enterline, A. J. (2021). *Correlates of War project: National Material Capabilities (NMC) data documentation* (Version 6.0). University of North Texas. https://correlatesofwar.org/data-sets/national-material-capabilities

Horowitz, M. C., & Stam, A. C. (2014). How prior military experience influences the future militarized behavior of leaders. *International Organization, 68*(3), 527–559. https://doi.org/10.2307/43282118

Karsh, E. (2014). *The Arab-Israeli conflict: The Palestine War 1948*. Bloomsbury Publishing.

Levy, J. S. (1987). Declining power and the preventive motivation for war. *World Politics, 40*(1), 82–107. https://doi.org/10.2307/2010195

Levy, J. S. (2004). What do great powers balance against and when? In *Balance of Power: Theory and Practice* (pp. 27–51). Stanford University Press. https://doi.org/10.1515/9780804767422-005

Morgenthau, H. J. (1948). *Politics among nations: The struggle for power and peace*. A. A. Knopf.

Naor, M. (2008). Israel's 1948 War of Independence as a total war. *Journal of Contemporary History, 43*(2), 241–257. http://www.jstor.org/stable/30036505

Sarkees, M. R., & Wayman, F. W. (2010). *Resort to war: A data guide to inter-state, extra-state, intra-state, and non-state wars, 1816–2007*. CQ Press.

Souva, M. (2022). Material military power: A country-year measure of military power, 1865–2019. *Journal of Peace Research*. https://doi.org/10.1177/00223433221112970

United Nations General Assembly. (1947, November 29). *Resolution 181 (II): Future government of Palestine* [A/RES/181(II)]. United Nations. https://undocs.org/en/A/RES/181(II)

Walt, S. M. (1988). *The origins of alliances*. Cornell University Press.